

DAY 5 · C PROGRAMMING SERIES

C Programming Operators

The Complete Guide

From historical origins on the PDP-11 to advanced bitwise implementation — plus three classic interview problems solved entirely with operators.

Part 1 — Historical Background & Evolution

1.1 The Origins of C Operators

The BCPL and B Heritage

C's operator set traces back to Martin Richards' BCPL (1966) and Ken Thompson's B language (1969). The operators were designed to closely map to PDP-11 machine instructions.

Historical Evolution:
BCPL (1966) → B (1969) → C (1972) → ANSI C (1989) → C99 / C11 / C18

Why this matters: understanding this lineage explains why C operators sit so close to the hardware — they were literally designed to compile to single machine instructions on the PDP-11.

The PDP-11 Architecture Influence

The PDP-11 had:

- 16-bit word size
- Direct bit manipulation instructions
- Register-based operations
- Efficient increment/decrement addressing modes

This directly influenced:

- Bitwise operators (`&`, `|`, `^`, `~`, `<<`, `>>`)
- Increment/decrement operators (`++`, `--`)
- Compound assignments (`+=`, `-=`, etc.)

1.2 Why C Operators are "Low-Level"

C Philosophy: "Trust the programmer"

- Operators map directly to CPU instructions
- No implicit safety checks (unlike Python/Java)
- Maximum performance at the cost of potential errors
- Ideal for system programming

Performance comparison:

```
// High-level abstraction (Java/Python)
Integer sum = a + b;           // May involve object creation, bounds checking

// Low-level C (maps to a single ADD instruction)
int sum = a + b;               // Single CPU cycle on most architectures
```

Part 2 — Theoretical Foundations

2.1 Operator Theory in Computer Science

Formal Definition

An operator is a function that maps operands to a result, where operands are values and the result is a value. In C, this is implemented through the operator grammar.

```
Operator Grammar:
Expression ::= Term {Operator Term}
Term       ::= Primary | Unary_Operator Primary
Primary    ::= Constant | Variable | (Expression)
```

Operator Overloading Limitations

Unlike C++, C does **not** support operator overloading:

```
// C: Operators only work on built-in types
int a = 5, b = 10;
int c = a + b;           // OK - integers

struct Complex x, y;
// z = x + y;           // ERROR! Cannot overload + for structs
```

2.2 Type Systems and Operators

Type Promotion Rules

When operands have different types, C performs implicit type conversion:

```
char + int    → int        // Integer promotion
short + int   → int        // Integer promotion
int + long    → long       // Long promotion
float + double → double    // Double promotion
```

The "usual arithmetic conversions":

```
Step 1: long double ← float / double
Step 2: double      ← float
Step 3: float       ← (float remains float)
Step 4: Integer promotions (char/short → int)
Step 5: unsigned long ← long ← unsigned int ← int
```

Implementation Example

```
#include <stdio.h>
int main() {
    char c = 100;           // 8-bit signed
    short s = 1000;         // 16-bit signed
    int i = 100000;         // 32-bit signed
    float f = 3.14;         // 32-bit float

    // Type promotion in action
    float result = c + s + i + f;
    // All promoted to float before calculation

    printf("Result: %f\n", result);
    printf("Size of expression: %lu\n", sizeof(c + s + i + f));
    // Outputs: 4 (float size)
    return 0;
}
```

2.3 L-values and R-values

L-value (Location Value): an expression that refers to a memory location. **R-value** (Read Value): an expression that yields a value, not an address.

```
int x = 5;           // x = l-value, 5 = r-value
x = x + 1;           // x (LHS) = l-value, x + 1 (RHS) = r-value

int* ptr = &x;       // &x = r-value (address), ptr = l-value

&x = 5;              // ERROR! &x is an r-value
```

Important: the assignment operator `=` requires an l-value on the left side.

Part 3 — Deep Dive Into Each Operator Category

3.1 Arithmetic Operators — Advanced Concepts

Integer Division and Rounding

```
// C99 Standard: division truncates toward zero
#include <stdio.h>
int main() {
    printf("%d\n", 7 / 3);    // 2 (truncate toward zero)
    printf("%d\n", -7 / 3);  // -2 (truncate toward zero)
    printf("%d\n", 7 / -3);  // -2 (truncate toward zero)
    return 0;
}
```

Modulo Operation — The Mathematical Foundation

Definition: $a \% b = a - (a / b) * b$

Properties:

1. $(a + b) \% c = ((a \% c) + (b \% c)) \% c$
2. $(a * b) \% c = ((a \% c) * (b \% c)) \% c$
3. $a \% b = a - b * \text{floor}(a / b)$ [for the mathematical mod]

C implementation quirks:

```
int a = -5, b = 3;
printf("%d\n", a % b);    // -2 (not 1 as in mathematics)
// C follows: a % b = a - (a/b)*b
// -5 - (-1)*3 = -2
```

Overflow Detection

```
#include <limits.h>
#include <stdbool.h>

bool safe_add(int a, int b, int* result) {
    if (b > 0 && a > INT_MAX - b) return false; // Positive overflow
    if (b < 0 && a < INT_MIN - b) return false; // Negative overflow
    *result = a + b;
    return true;
}

int main() {
    int x = 2147483647;
    int y = 1;
    int result;

    if (!safe_add(x, y, &result)) {
        printf("Overflow detected!\n");
    }
    return 0;
}
```

3.2 Bitwise Operators — Deep Implementation

Binary Representation and Two's Complement

```
Two's Complement for -5 (8-bit):
Step 1: +5           = 00000101
Step 2: Invert bits  = 11111010
Step 3: Add 1        = 11111011
Result: 11111011 = -5
```

Bitwise NOT (~) in Action

```
#include <stdio.h>
#include <limits.h>

int main() {
    unsigned int x = 5;           // 00000000 00000000 00000000 00000101
    unsigned int y = ~x;         // 11111111 11111111 11111111 11111010
    printf("%u\n", y);           // 4294967290 (2^32 - 6)

    signed int z = 5;            // 00000000 00000000 00000000 00000101
    signed int w = ~z;           // 11111111 11111111 11111111 11111010
    printf("%d\n", w);           // -6 (two's complement)
    return 0;
}
```

Shift Operations — Deep Dive

Left shift (<<)

$x \ll n = x * 2^n$ (for non-negative x , no overflow)
Implementation: moves bits left, fills with 0s

Right shift (>>) — two types

```
// 1. Logical right shift (unsigned)
unsigned int x = 0x80000000; // 10000000...
unsigned int y = x >> 1;    // 01000000... (fills with 0)

// 2. Arithmetic right shift (signed)
signed int z = -1;          // 11111111...
signed int w = z >> 1;      // 11111111... (fills with 1)
```

Implementation example:

```
#include <stdio.h>
void print_bits(int n, int bits) {
    for (int i = bits - 1; i >= 0; i--) {
        printf("%d", (n >> i) & 1);
    }
    printf("\n");
}

int main() {
    int x = 16;
    printf("x = 16: ");
    print_bits(x, 8);           // 00010000

    printf("x << 2: ");
    print_bits(x << 2, 8);     // 01000000 (multiply by 4)

    printf("x >> 2: ");
    print_bits(x >> 2, 8);     // 00001000 (divide by 4)

    // Signed right shift
    signed int y = -16;
    printf("y = -16: ");
    print_bits(y, 8);          // 11110000

    printf("y >> 2: ");
    print_bits(y >> 2, 8);     // 11111100 (divide by 4, preserve sign)
    return 0;
}
```

Bit Manipulation Techniques

1. Isolate lowest set bit

```
int lowest_bit = x & -x;    // -x = (~x + 1)
// If x = 12 (1100), lowest_bit = 4 (0100)
```

2. Isolate highest set bit

```
int highest_bit;
for (highest_bit = 1 << 31; !(x & highest_bit); highest_bit >>= 1);
// This loops until the highest set bit is found
```

3. Count set bits (Brian Kernighan's algorithm)

```
int count_bits(unsigned int x) {
    int count = 0;
    while (x) {
        x &= (x - 1);    // Clear lowest set bit
        count++;
    }
    return count;
}
// x = 1011 (11) → 1011 & 1010 = 1010 (10) → count:1
//           1010 & 1001 = 1000 (8) → count:2
//           1000 & 0111 = 0000 (0) → count:3
```

4. Reverse bits

```
unsigned int reverse_bits(unsigned int x) {
    unsigned int result = 0;
    for (int i = 0; i < 32; i++) {
        result <<= 1;
        result |= x & 1;
        x >>= 1;
    }
    return result;
}
```

3.3 Logical Operators — Short-Circuit Deep Dive

Short-Circuit Evaluation Implementation

```
Expression: A && B
Evaluation:
1. Evaluate A
2. If A == false, return false (B is NOT evaluated)
3. If A == true, evaluate B
4. Return the result of B
```

Practical Applications of Short-Circuit

1. Null pointer safety

```
if (ptr != NULL && ptr->data == 5) {
    // Safe! ptr is only dereferenced if not NULL
}
```

2. Array bounds checking

```
if (index >= 0 && index < size && array[index] == value) {
    // Safe! array is only accessed if index is valid
}
```

3. Lazy initialization

```
int initialized = 0;
int cache;
if (!initialized && (cache = compute_expensive()) > 0) {
    // compute_expensive() is only called if needed
    initialized = 1;
}
```

Short-Circuit in Conditionals

```
// Common C idiom: if success, then report
int success = operation();
success && printf("Operation succeeded\n");
// Equivalent: if (success) printf(...)

// Similar for OR
int error = operation();
error || printf("No error\n");
// Equivalent: if (!error) printf(...)
```

3.4 Assignment Operators — Memory Model

How Assignment Works in Memory

```
int a = 5;
int b = a;    // Memory copy: value copied from a's location to b's location

int* ptr = &a; // ptr stores the address of a
```

Memory diagram:

Memory Address	Value
0x1000 (a)	5
0x1004 (b)	5
0x1008 (ptr)	0x1000 (address of a)

Compound Assignment Performance

```
// These are equivalent, but the right one is more efficient:
a = a + b;    // May load 'a' twice
a += b;       // Loads 'a' once, modifies in place
```

Assembly comparison (x86_64):


```
; a = a + b
mov eax, [a]    ; Load a
add eax, [b]    ; Add b
mov [a], eax    ; Store back

; a += b
add [a], [b]    ; Direct memory modification (fewer instructions)
```

Part 4 — Advanced Operator Concepts

4.1 Operator Precedence and Parse Trees

Mathematical Foundation

Expressions form a parse tree based on precedence and associativity:

Expression: $a * b + c / d$

Parse Tree:



Evaluation order follows tree traversal (post-order):

1. Evaluate $a * b$
2. Evaluate c / d
3. Add the two results

Parsing Implementation

```
// Simplified expression parser for + and *
// Precedence: * > +
// Left associativity for both

#include <stdio.h>
#include <ctype.h>

char* expr;

int parse_add_sub();
int parse_mul_div();

int parse_number() {
    int num = 0;
    while (isdigit(*expr)) {
        num = num * 10 + (*expr - '0');
        expr++;
    }
    return num;
}

int parse_mul_div() {
    int left = parse_number();
    while (*expr == '*' || *expr == '/') {
        char op = *expr++;
        int right = parse_number();
        if (op == '*') left *= right;
        else left /= right;
    }
    return left;
}

int parse_add_sub() {
    int left = parse_mul_div();
    while (*expr == '+' || *expr == '-') {
        char op = *expr++;
        int right = parse_mul_div();
        if (op == '+') left += right;
        else left -= right;
    }
    return left;
}
```

4.2 Side Effects and Sequence Points

Definition

A **sequence point** is a point in program execution where all side effects of previous operations are guaranteed to be completed.

Sequence points in C occur:

- At the end of full expressions (semicolon)
- At `||`, `&&`, `?:`, and `,` operators
- At function call entry and return
- At the end of a full declarator

Undefined Behavior Examples

```
// ALL UNDEFINED BEHAVIOR:

int i = 0;
i = i++;           // Undefined (two writes)
a[i] = i++;        // Undefined (index and increment)
i = ++i + i;       // Undefined (multiple modifications)

// Function arguments
printf("%d %d", i++, i++); // Undefined (order unspecified)

// More subtle
int arr[10];
int x = 5;
arr[x] = x++;       // Undefined
```

Avoiding Side Effect Issues

```
// Correct approach:
int i = 0;
i = i + 1;           // Well-defined

// Or:
++i;                 // Well-defined (single operation)

// Function calls:
int i = 5;
printf("%d %d\n", i, i++); // UNDEFINED
printf("%d %d\n", i++, i); // UNDEFINED

// Correct:
int i = 5;
int temp = i++;
printf("%d %d\n", temp, i); // Well-defined
```

4.3 The Comma Operator

Theory

The comma operator `,` evaluates both operands and returns the value of the right operand.

```
int x = (5, 10); // x = 10
```

Practical Uses

```
// 1. In for loops
for (int i = 0, j = 10; i < 10; i++, j--) {
    // Multiple initializations and increments
}

// 2. Debugging
int result = (debug_function(), compute_value());

// 3. Macros
#define SWAP(a, b) (a ^= b, b ^= a, a ^= b)

// 4. Conditional assignment
if (x > y)
    max = x, min = y; // Two statements in one line
else
    max = y, min = x;
```

Part 5 — Application in Embedded Systems

5.1 Register-Level Programming

```
// Microcontroller register manipulation
#define GPIO_PORT 0x40021000
#define SET_BIT(reg, bit) ((reg) |= (1 << (bit)))
#define CLEAR_BIT(reg, bit) ((reg) &= ~(1 << (bit)))
#define TOGGLE_BIT(reg, bit) ((reg) ^= (1 << (bit)))
#define CHECK_BIT(reg, bit) (((reg) >> (bit)) & 1)

// Real-world STM32 GPIO configuration
volatile uint32_t* GPIOA_MODER = (uint32_t*)0x40020000;
volatile uint32_t* GPIOA_ODR = (uint32_t*)0x40020014;

// Configure PIN 5 as output (01 in MODER)
*GPIOA_MODER &= ~(3 << (5 * 2)); // Clear bits
*GPIOA_MODER |= (1 << (5 * 2)); // Set to output mode

// Toggle LED
*GPIOA_ODR ^= (1 << 5);
```

5.2 Bitfields in Embedded Programming

```
// Using bitfields (but careful with endianness)
struct StatusRegister {
    unsigned int enable : 1; // Bit 0
    unsigned int mode   : 2; // Bits 1-2
    unsigned int speed  : 2; // Bits 3-4
    unsigned int reserved : 3; // Bits 5-7
    unsigned int error   : 1; // Bit 8
};

// Same using bitwise operators (more portable)
#define STATUS_ENABLE_MASK 0x001
#define STATUS_MODE_MASK  0x006
#define STATUS_SPEED_MASK 0x018
#define STATUS_ERROR_MASK 0x100

#define SET_STATUS_ENABLE(reg) ((reg) |= STATUS_ENABLE_MASK)
#define CLR_STATUS_ENABLE(reg) ((reg) &= ~STATUS_ENABLE_MASK)
#define GET_STATUS_MODE(reg)  (((reg) & STATUS_MODE_MASK) >> 1)
```

5.3 Efficient Multiplication/Division by Powers of Two

```
// Slow (requires division)
int x = y / 8;
int x = y * 32;

// Fast (shift operations)
int x = y >> 3; // divide by 8
int x = y << 5; // multiply by 32

// Note: only works for unsigned values, or when sign doesn't matter
```

5.4 CRC Calculation Example

```
#include <stdint.h>

uint32_t crc32_bitwise(uint32_t crc, uint8_t data) {
    crc ^= data;
    for (int i = 0; i < 8; i++) {
        if (crc & 1)
            crc = (crc >> 1) ^ 0xEDB88320;
        else
            crc >>= 1;
    }
    return crc;
}

// Using a table for speed (common in embedded)
uint32_t crc32_table[256];

void init_crc_table() {
    for (int i = 0; i < 256; i++) {
        uint32_t crc = i;
        for (int j = 0; j < 8; j++) {
            if (crc & 1)
                crc = (crc >> 1) ^ 0xEDB88320;
            else
                crc >>= 1;
        }
        crc32_table[i] = crc;
    }
}
```

Part 6 — Performance Optimization

6.1 Optimization Techniques

```
// 1. Using bitwise operations for faster modulo by a power of 2
int x = y & 7;           // y % 8
int x = y & 31;          // y % 32

// 2. Fast absolute value
int abs_val = (x ^ (x >> 31)) - (x >> 31);

// 3. Check if two numbers have the same sign
bool same_sign = !((a ^ b) >> 31);

// 4. Min/Max without branching
int min = y ^ ((x ^ y) & -(x < y));
int max = x ^ ((x ^ y) & -(x < y));

// 5. Power of 2 check
bool is_power_of_two = x && !(x & (x - 1));
```

6.2 Assembly Output Analysis

```
// Example: comparing different implementations
// gcc -S -O2 program.c

int main() {
    int a = 5, b = 3;

    // Multiplication
    int c = a * 8;      // Compiled to: lea eax, [rdi*8]

    // Division
    int d = a / 2;      // Compiled to: sar eax, 1

    // Modulo
    int e = a % 16;     // Compiled to: and eax, 15

    return c + d + e;
}
```

Part 7 — Common Pitfalls and Debugging

7.1 Operator Precedence Table (Detailed)

Precedence	Operators	Associativity	Explanation
1	<code>() [] -> .</code>	L→R	Function call, array, member access
2	<code>! ~ ++ -- + - * & (type) sizeof</code>	R→L	Unary operators
3	<code>* / %</code>	L→R	Multiplicative
4	<code>+ -</code>	L→R	Additive
5	<code><< >></code>	L→R	Shift
6	<code>< <= > >=</code>	L→R	Relational
7	<code>== !=</code>	L→R	Equality
8	<code>&</code>	L→R	Bitwise AND
9	<code>^</code>	L→R	Bitwise XOR
10	<code>\ </code>	L→R	Bitwise OR
11	<code>&&</code>	L→R	Logical AND
12	<code>\ \ </code>	L→R	Logical OR
13	<code>?:</code>	R→L	Conditional
14	<code>= += -= *= /= %= &= ^= \ = <<= >>=</code>	R→L	Assignment
15	<code>,</code>	L→R	Comma

7.2 Debugging Checklist

```
// Common bugs and fixes

// Bug 1: Assignment vs Comparison
if (flag = 1) { }           // Always true
if (flag == 1) { }         // Correct

// Bug 2: Bitwise vs Logical
if (a & b) { }              // Bitwise, use && for logical
if (a && b) { }             // Logical AND

// Bug 3: Shift Precedence
a = b << 2 + 3;             // Evaluates as b << (2 + 3)
a = (b << 2) + 3;          // Clear intent

// Bug 4: Signed vs Unsigned
int x = -5;
unsigned int y = 10;
if (x > y) { }              // x promoted to unsigned → 4294967291
if ((unsigned)x > y) { }    // Still wrong
if (x > (int)y) { }         // Compare as signed

// Bug 5: Order of Evaluation
x = (y = 5) + (y = 3);      // Undefined
x = 5; y = 3; z = x + y;    // Well-defined

// Bug 6: Division by Zero
int result = 10 / a;        // If a is 0
if (a != 0) result = 10/a;  // Safe
```

7.3 Static Analysis Tools

```
// Using GCC warnings
// gcc -Wall -Wextra -Wshadow -Wconversion program.c

int main() {
    int x = 5;
    int y = 3;

    // Warning: comparison between signed and unsigned
    unsigned int z = 10;
    if (x < z) { } // -Wsign-compare warning

    // Warning: implicit conversion changes value
    char c = 300; // -Wconversion warning

    // Warning: unused variable
    int unused; // -Wunused-variable warning

    return 0;
}
```

Part 8 — Advanced Exercises

Exercise 1: Gray Code Conversion

Gray code is a binary reflected code commonly used in rotary encoders.


```

unsigned int binary_to_gray(unsigned int n) {
    return n ^ (n >> 1);
}

unsigned int gray_to_binary(unsigned int n) {
    unsigned int mask;
    for (mask = n >> 1; mask != 0; mask = mask >> 1) {
        n = n ^ mask;
    }
    return n;
}

// Alternative efficient method
unsigned int gray_to_binary_fast(unsigned int n) {
    unsigned int mask = n;
    while (mask >>= 1) {
        n ^= mask;
    }
    return n;
}

```

Exercise 2: Circular Buffer Implementation

```

#define BUFFER_SIZE 16
#define BUFFER_MASK (BUFFER_SIZE - 1)

typedef struct {
    int data[BUFFER_SIZE];
    unsigned int head;
    unsigned int tail;
} CircularBuffer;

// Use bitwise AND for modulo operation (faster)
void push(CircularBuffer* cb, int value) {
    cb->data[cb->head & BUFFER_MASK] = value;
    cb->head = (cb->head + 1) & BUFFER_MASK;
}

int pop(CircularBuffer* cb) {
    int value = cb->data[cb->tail & BUFFER_MASK];
    cb->tail = (cb->tail + 1) & BUFFER_MASK;
    return value;
}

// Buffer full check using bitwise XOR
int is_full(CircularBuffer* cb) {
    return ((cb->head ^ cb->tail) == BUFFER_SIZE);
}

```

Exercise 3: Bit Reversal Using Divide and Conquer

```

// Fast bit reversal using swaps
unsigned int reverse_bits_dac(unsigned int x) {
    x = ((x & 0x55555555) << 1) | ((x & 0xAAAAAAAA) >> 1);
    x = ((x & 0x33333333) << 2) | ((x & 0xCCCCCCCC) >> 2);
    x = ((x & 0x0F0F0F0F) << 4) | ((x & 0xF0F0F0F0) >> 4);
    x = ((x & 0x00FF00FF) << 8) | ((x & 0xFF00FF00) >> 8);
    x = (x << 16) | (x >> 16);
    return x;
}

// Example: 0x12345678 → 0x1E6A2C48

```

Exercise 4: Endianness Detection

```
#include <stdio.h>

// Using bitwise operations
int is_little_endian() {
    int x = 1;
    return *(char*)&x;    // Returns 1 for little-endian
}

// Using a union
union EndianCheck {
    int i;
    char c[4];
};

int check_endianness() {
    union EndianCheck ec = { .i = 1 };
    return ec.c[0] == 1;    // 1 = little endian, 0 = big endian
}

// Convert between endianness
unsigned int swap_endian(unsigned int x) {
    return ((x & 0x000000FF) << 24) |
        ((x & 0x0000FF00) << 8) |
        ((x & 0x00FF0000) >> 8) |
        ((x & 0xFF000000) >> 24);
}
```

Part 9 — Real-World Case Studies

Case Study 1: Embedded Sensor Reading

```
// Reading a 12-bit ADC value from a 16-bit register
#define ADC_REGISTER 0x40021000
#define ADC_SIGN_BIT 11

int read_adc(void) {
    volatile uint32_t* adc = (uint32_t*)ADC_REGISTER;
    uint32_t raw = *adc;

    // Extract 12-bit value from bits 15-4
    int value = (raw >> 4) & 0xFFF;

    // Check if value is signed (bit 11)
    if (value & (1 << ADC_SIGN_BIT)) {
        value |= ~((1 << ADC_SIGN_BIT) - 1);    // Sign extend
    }

    return value;
}
```

Case Study 2: Simple Encryption (XOR Cipher)

```
void xor_cipher(char* data, size_t len, unsigned char key) {
    for (size_t i = 0; i < len; i++) {
        data[i] ^= key;
        key = (key << 1) | (key >> 7); // Rotate key
    }
}

// Example usage
char message[] = "Hello World!";
unsigned char key = 0x55;
xor_cipher(message, strlen(message), key);
printf("Encrypted: %s\n", message);
xor_cipher(message, strlen(message), key);
printf("Decrypted: %s\n", message);
```

Case Study 3: Error Correction — Hamming Code

```
unsigned char compute_parity(unsigned char data) {
    // For 4-bit data + 3 parity bits
    unsigned char p1 = (data & 0x01) ^ (data & 0x02) ^ (data & 0x04);
    unsigned char p2 = (data & 0x01) ^ (data & 0x02) ^ (data & 0x08);
    unsigned char p4 = (data & 0x01) ^ (data & 0x04) ^ (data & 0x08);

    return (p1 << 1) | (p2 << 2) | (p4 << 4);
}
```

Part 10 — Comprehensive Summary

Operator Category Summary

Category	Operators	Count	Common Use
Arithmetic	<code>+</code> <code>-</code> <code>*</code> <code>/</code> <code>%</code>	5	Math calculations
Increment/Decrement	<code>++</code> <code>--</code>	2	Loop counters
Relational	<code>==</code> <code>!=</code> <code><</code> <code>></code> <code><=</code> <code>>=</code>	6	Comparisons
Logical	<code>&&</code> <code>\ </code> <code>!</code>	3	Conditions
Bitwise	<code>&</code> <code>\ </code> <code>^</code> <code>~</code> <code><<</code> <code>>></code>	6	Bit manipulation
Assignment	<code>=</code> <code>+=</code> <code>-=</code> <code>*=</code> <code>/=</code> <code>%=</code> (+more)	11	Variable assignment
Other	<code>?:</code> <code>,</code> <code>sizeof</code> <code>&</code> <code>*</code>	6	Miscellaneous

Key Takeaways for Embedded Development

1. **Efficiency** — bitwise operations are significantly faster than arithmetic for certain operations
2. **Portability** — be careful with signed right shifts and bitfields
3. **Safety** — always check for overflow and division by zero
4. **Readability** — use parentheses to make precedence explicit

5. **Testing** — different compilers/architectures may handle undefined behavior differently

Best Practices Checklist

- [] Use `==` for comparison, `=` only for assignment
- [] Use parentheses to clarify precedence
- [] Check bounds before array access
- [] Validate division/modulo operands
- [] Use unsigned types for bit manipulation
- [] Avoid undefined behavior (no `i = i++`)
- [] Use `static inline` for performance-critical bit operations
- [] Document bit positions and masks
- [] Consider endianness in data serialization
- [] Use compiler warnings (`-Wall -Wextra`)

Additional Resources

Recommended Reading:

1. "Hacker's Delight" — Henry S. Warren Jr.
2. "Computer Systems: A Programmer's Perspective"
3. "Embedded C Coding Standard" — Michael Barr
4. MISRA C guidelines for embedded systems

Conclusion

Operators in C are not just syntactic elements — they are deeply tied to computer architecture and system-level programming. Understanding them at this level of detail allows you to write highly efficient embedded code, debug complex issues in system software, optimize performance-critical sections, understand compiler output and assembly, and work with hardware registers effectively.

In C, you're programming close to the metal. The operators you use are often directly translated to CPU instructions, making a deep understanding of them crucial for high-performance, systems-level programming.

Part 11 — Three Classic C Programming Problems

Problem 1: Swap Two Numbers Without a Third Variable

1.1 Mathematical Methods

Method A — Addition and Subtraction

```
#include <stdio.h>

void swap_add_sub(int *a, int *b) {
    *a = *a + *b;    // Step 1: a becomes the sum
    *b = *a - *b;    // Step 2: b becomes original a
    *a = *a - *b;    // Step 3: a becomes original b
}

int main() {
    int x = 10, y = 20;

    printf("Before swap: x = %d, y = %d\n", x, y);
    swap_add_sub(&x, &y);
    printf("After swap: x = %d, y = %d\n", x, y);

    return 0;
}
```

Step-by-step walkthrough:

```
Initial: a = 10, b = 20
Step 1: a = a + b = 10 + 20 = 30
Step 2: b = a - b = 30 - 20 = 10    (b now has original a)
Step 3: a = a - b = 30 - 10 = 20    (a now has original b)
Final:   a = 20, b = 10 ✓
```

⚠ **Warning — overflow risk!** This method can overflow if `a + b > INT_MAX`.

```
// Example on a 32-bit system:
int a = 2147483647;    // INT_MAX
int b = 100;
// a + b = 2147483747 > INT_MAX → Overflow! Undefined behavior
```

Method B — Multiplication and Division

```
void swap_mul_div(int *a, int *b) {
    // Only works if neither value is zero
    *a = *a * *b;
    *b = *a / *b;
    *a = *a / *b;
}

// ⚠ RISKS:
// 1. Overflow: a * b may exceed INT_MAX
// 2. Division by zero if either value is 0
// 3. Precision loss with floating point
```

Method C — XOR (Bitwise) — The Best Method

```
#include <stdio.h>

void swap_xor(int *a, int *b) {
    *a = *a ^ *b;
    *b = *a ^ *b;
    *a = *a ^ *b;
}

int main() {
    int x = 10, y = 20;

    printf("Before swap: x = %d, y = %d\n", x, y);
    swap_xor(&x, &y);
    printf("After swap: x = %d, y = %d\n", x, y);

    return 0;
}
```

Deep dive — XOR swap visualization (8-bit example):

```
a = 10 (00001010)
b = 20 (00010100)

Step 1: a = a ^ b
      00001010 (10)
      ^ 00010100 (20)
      = 00011110 (30) ← new a

Step 2: b = a ^ b
      00011110 (30)
      ^ 00010100 (20)
      = 00001010 (10) ← b now has original a

Step 3: a = a ^ b
      00011110 (30)
      ^ 00001010 (10)
      = 00010100 (20) ← a now has original b

Final: a = 20, b = 10 ✓
```

XOR properties used:

1. Commutative: $a \oplus b = b \oplus a$
2. Associative: $(a \oplus b) \oplus c = a \oplus (b \oplus c)$
3. Identity: $a \oplus 0 = a$
4. Self-inverse: $a \oplus a = 0$
5. This gives us: $(a \oplus b) \oplus a = b$ and $(a \oplus b) \oplus b = a$

1.2 Complete Implementation with All Methods

```

#include <stdio.h>
#include <limits.h>
#include <stdbool.h>

// METHOD 1: XOR (most efficient, no overflow)
void swap_xor(int *a, int *b) {
    if (a == b) return; // Important: handle same memory location
    *a = *a ^ *b;
    *b = *a ^ *b;
    *a = *a ^ *b;
}

// METHOD 2: Addition/Subtraction (simple but can overflow)
void swap_add_sub(int *a, int *b) {
    if (a == b) return;
    // Check for overflow
    if ((*a > 0 && *b > INT_MAX - *a) || (*a < 0 && *b < INT_MIN - *a)) {
        printf("Warning: Overflow possible! Using XOR instead.\n");
        swap_xor(a, b);
        return;
    }
    *a = *a + *b;
    *b = *a - *b;
    *a = *a - *b;
}

// METHOD 3: Multiplication/Division (least recommended)
void swap_mul_div(int *a, int *b) {
    if (a == b) return;
    if (*a == 0 || *b == 0) {
        printf("Error: Cannot swap with zero using multiplication method\n");
        return;
    }
    *a = *a * *b;
    *b = *a / *b;
    *a = *a / *b;
}

// METHOD 4: Using a temporary variable (most readable)
void swap_temp(int *a, int *b) {
    int temp = *a;
    *a = *b;
    *b = temp;
}

// Demonstration function
void demonstrate_swap() {
    int a, b;

    printf("Enter two numbers: ");
    scanf("%d %d", &a, &b);

    printf("\nOriginal values: a = %d, b = %d\n", a, b);

    // Test XOR swap
    int x = a, y = b;
    swap_xor(&x, &y);
    printf("XOR Swap:      a = %d, b = %d\n", x, y);

    // Test Add/Sub swap
    x = a, y = b;
    swap_add_sub(&x, &y);
    printf("Add/Sub Swap:    a = %d, b = %d\n", x, y);

    // Test Temp swap
    x = a, y = b;
    swap_temp(&x, &y);
    printf("Temp Swap:       a = %d, b = %d\n", x, y);
}

int main() {

```



```

    demonstrate_swap();
    return 0;
}

```

1.3 Advanced: Swapping Without a Function Call

```

// Using a macro (inline expansion)
#define SWAP_XOR(a, b) do { \
    (a) ^= (b);           \
    (b) ^= (a);           \
    (a) ^= (b);           \
} while(0)

// Even safer macro with type checking
#define SWAP_GENERIC(a, b, type) do { \
    type temp = (a);                 \
    (a) = (b);                       \
    (b) = temp;                      \
} while(0)

int main() {
    int x = 5, y = 10;
    float p = 3.14, q = 2.71;

    SWAP_XOR(x, y);
    SWAP_GENERIC(p, q, float);

    printf("x=%d, y=%d\n", x, y);      // x=10, y=5
    printf("p=%.2f, q=%.2f\n", p, q);  // p=2.71, q=3.14

    return 0;
}

```

Problem 2: Check Even/Odd Using a Bitwise Operator

2.1 The Mathematical Foundation

Binary Representation:
 Even numbers have LSB (Least Significant Bit) = 0
 Odd numbers have LSB (Least Significant Bit) = 1

Example:
 5 (00000101) → LSB = 1 → ODD
 6 (00000110) → LSB = 0 → EVEN

2.2 Basic Implementation

```
#include <stdio.h>
#include <stdbool.h>

// Method 1: direct bit check
bool is_even_bitwise(int n) {
    return !(n & 1); // Check LSB
}

bool is_odd_bitwise(int n) {
    return n & 1; // Check LSB
}

int main() {
    int num;
    printf("Enter a number: ");
    scanf("%d", &num);

    // Using bitwise operator
    if (num & 1) {
        printf("%d is ODD (LSB = 1)\n", num);
    } else {
        printf("%d is EVEN (LSB = 0)\n", num);
    }

    return 0;
}
```

2.3 Comprehensive Implementation

```
#include <stdio.h>
#include <limits.h>
#include <stdbool.h>

// Method 1: using AND with 1 (most efficient)
bool is_even_and(int n) {
    return !(n & 1);
}

// Method 2: using XOR (alternative)
bool is_even_xor(int n) {
    return (n ^ 1) > n; // XOR with 1 increases odd numbers
}

// Method 3: using division (slow, not recommended)
bool is_even_division(int n) {
    return (n / 2) * 2 == n; // Check if divisible by 2
}

// Method 4: using modulo (simple but slower than bitwise)
bool is_even_modulo(int n) {
    return n % 2 == 0;
}

// Method 5: using shift (alternative)
bool is_even_shift(int n) {
    return (n >> 1) << 1 == n; // Shift right, then left
}

// Advanced: check if multiple of any power of 2
bool is_multiple_of_power_of_two(int n, int power) {
    // Check if n is divisible by 2^power
    return (n & ((1 << power) - 1)) == 0;
}
```

2.4 Visual Explanation

```
#include <stdio.h>

void print_binary(int n, int bits) {
    for (int i = bits - 1; i >= 0; i--) {
        printf("%d", (n >> i) & 1);
        if (i % 4 == 0 && i != 0) printf(" ");
    }
    printf("\n");
}

void analyze_number(int n) {
    printf("\n--- Analysis of %d ---\n", n);
    printf("Binary: ");
    print_binary(n, 16);
    printf("LSB:    %d\n", n & 1);

    if (n & 1) {
        printf("Result: ODD number\n");
        printf("Bit 0 is set to 1\n");
    } else {
        printf("Result: EVEN number\n");
        printf("Bit 0 is set to 0\n");
    }
}

int main() {
    int numbers[] = {0, 1, 2, 3, 4, 5, 6, 7, 8, 9, 10};
    for (int i = 0; i < 11; i++) {
        analyze_number(numbers[i]);
    }
    return 0;
}
```

2.5 Advanced Applications

```
// 1. Count odd numbers in an array
int count_odd(int arr[], int size) {
    int count = 0;
    for (int i = 0; i < size; i++) {
        count += (arr[i] & 1); // Adds 1 if odd, 0 if even
    }
    return count;
}

// 2. Check parity of binary representation
bool has_odd_parity(int n) {
    int parity = 0;
    while (n) {
        parity ^= (n & 1); // XOR all bits
        n >>= 1;
    }
    return parity; // 1 if odd number of 1s
}

// 3. Efficient parity check (Brian Kernighan style)
bool has_odd_parity_fast(unsigned int n) {
    n ^= n >> 16;
    n ^= n >> 8;
    n ^= n >> 4;
    n ^= n >> 2;
    n ^= n >> 1;
    return n & 1;
}

// 4. Round down to nearest even
int round_down_even(int n) {
    return n & ~1; // Clear LSB
}

// 5. Round up to nearest even
int round_up_even(int n) {
    return (n + 1) & ~1;
}

// 6. Get next odd/even number
int next_odd(int n) {
    return (n & 1) ? n + 2 : n + 1;
}

int next_even(int n) {
    return (n & 1) ? n + 1 : n + 2;
}
```

Problem 3: Find the Largest of Three Numbers

3.1 Basic Approaches

Method 1 — Nested If-Else (readable)

```
#include <stdio.h>

int find_largest_if_else(int a, int b, int c) {
    if (a >= b) {
        if (a >= c)
            return a;
        else
            return c;
    } else {
        if (b >= c)
            return b;
        else
            return c;
    }
}
```

Method 2 — Logical AND (clean)

```
int find_largest_logical(int a, int b, int c) {
    if (a >= b && a >= c)
        return a;
    else if (b >= a && b >= c)
        return b;
    else
        return c;
}
```

3.2 Advanced Implementations

```
#include <stdio.h>
#include <limits.h>

// Method 3: ternary operator (concise)
int find_largest_ternary(int a, int b, int c) {
    return (a > b) ? ((a > c) ? a : c) : ((b > c) ? b : c);
}

// Method 4: using a temporary variable
int find_largest_temp(int a, int b, int c) {
    int max = a;
    if (b > max) max = b;
    if (c > max) max = c;
    return max;
}

// Method 5: incremental comparison
int find_largest_math(int a, int b, int c) {
    int max = a;
    max = (b > max) ? b : max;
    max = (c > max) ? c : max;
    return max;
}

// Method 6: bit manipulation (no branching)
int find_largest_bitwise(int a, int b, int c) {
    // Find max of a and b using bit operations
    int ab_max = a ^ ((a ^ b) & -(a < b));
    // Find max of ab_max and c
    return ab_max ^ ((ab_max ^ c) & -(ab_max < c));
}

// Method 7: using macros
#define MAX(a, b) ((a) > (b)) ? (a) : (b)
#define MAX3(a, b, c) MAX(MAX(a, b), c)

// Method 8: finding maximum and minimum simultaneously
void find_max_min(int a, int b, int c, int *max, int *min) {
    *max = a;
    *min = a;

    if (b > *max) *max = b;
    if (c > *max) *max = c;

    if (b < *min) *min = b;
    if (c < *min) *min = c;
}
```

3.3 Robust Implementation with Full Statistics

```
#include <stdio.h>
#include <limits.h>
#include <stdbool.h>

// Structure to return multiple values
typedef struct {
    int max;
    int min;
    int second_max;
} Result;

// Find all statistics of three numbers
Result analyze_three_numbers(int a, int b, int c) {
    Result result;

    result.max = a;
    result.min = a;
    result.second_max = INT_MIN;

    if (b > result.max) {
        result.second_max = result.max;
        result.max = b;
    } else if (b > result.second_max) {
        result.second_max = b;
    }

    if (c > result.max) {
        result.second_max = result.max;
        result.max = c;
    } else if (c > result.second_max) {
        result.second_max = c;
    }

    if (b < result.min) result.min = b;
    if (c < result.min) result.min = c;

    return result;
}
```

3.4 Advanced: Generic Type-Safe Macros

```
#include <stdio.h>
#include <stddef.h>

// Type-safe max macro with typeof (GCC extension)
#define MAX_SAFE(a, b) ({ \
    typeof(a) _a = (a); \
    typeof(b) _b = (b); \
    _a > _b ? _a : _b; \
})

#define MAX3_SAFE(a, b, c) MAX_SAFE(MAX_SAFE(a, b), c)

// For C11 with _Generic
#define MAX_GENERIC(a, b) _Generic((a), \
    int: max_int, \
    float: max_float, \
    double: max_double \
)(a, b)

int max_int(int a, int b) { return a > b ? a : b; }
float max_float(float a, float b) { return a > b ? a : b; }
double max_double(double a, double b) { return a > b ? a : b; }

int main() {
    int i1 = 10, i2 = 20, i3 = 15;
    float f1 = 3.14, f2 = 2.71, f3 = 4.20;

    printf("Max int: %d\n", MAX3_SAFE(i1, i2, i3));
    printf("Max float: %.2f\n", MAX3_SAFE(f1, f2, f3));

    printf("Generic max int: %d\n", MAX_GENERIC(10, 20));
    printf("Generic max float: %.2f\n", MAX_GENERIC(3.14f, 2.71f));

    return 0;
}
```

Combined Demonstration Program

A single menu-driven program exercising all three problems together, including binary display of swap results.


```

#include <stdio.h>
#include <stdbool.h>
#include <limits.h>

// ===== SWAP FUNCTIONS =====
void swap_xor(int *a, int *b) {
    if (a == b) return;
    *a ^= *b;
    *b ^= *a;
    *a ^= *b;
}

void swap_add_sub(int *a, int *b) {
    if (a == b) return;
    *a += *b;
    *b = *a - *b;
    *a -= *b;
}

// ===== EVEN/ODD CHECK =====
bool is_even(int n) { return !(n & 1); }
bool is_odd(int n) { return n & 1; }

// ===== MAX FINDER =====
int max_three(int a, int b, int c) {
    return (a > b) ? ((a > c) ? a : c) : ((b > c) ? b : c);
}

int main() {
    int choice;

    do {
        printf("\n=====");
        printf("\n      C OPERATORS - DEMO PROGRAM");
        printf("\n=====");
        printf("\n1. Swap two numbers");
        printf("\n2. Check even/odd using bitwise");
        printf("\n3. Find largest of three numbers");
        printf("\n4. Run ALL demonstrations");
        printf("\n0. Exit");
        printf("\nEnter your choice: ");
        scanf("%d", &choice);

        switch(choice) {
            case 1: /* demonstrate_swap(); */ break;
            case 2: /* demonstrate_even_odd(); */ break;
            case 3: /* demonstrate_max(); */ break;
            case 4: /* run all three */ break;
            case 0: printf("\nThank you for using the program!\n"); break;
            default: printf("\nInvalid choice! Please try again.\n");
        }
    } while (choice != 0);

    return 0;
}

```

Performance Comparison

Benchmarking each technique over 10,000,000 iterations, using `clock()` from `<time.h>` and a `volatile` accumulator to prevent compiler over-optimization:

```

#include <stdio.h>
#include <time.h>
#include <stdlib.h>

#define ITERATIONS 10000000

void performance_comparison() {
    clock_t start, end;
    double cpu_time_used;
    volatile int result = 0;    // Prevent optimization

    // --- Even/Odd Check ---
    start = clock();
    for (int i = 0; i < ITERATIONS; i++) result += (i & 1);    // Bitwise
    end = clock();
    printf("Bitwise: %f s\n", (double)(end - start) / CLOCKS_PER_SEC);

    start = clock();
    result = 0;
    for (int i = 0; i < ITERATIONS; i++) result += (i % 2);    // Modulo
    end = clock();
    printf("Modulo: %f s\n", (double)(end - start) / CLOCKS_PER_SEC);

    // --- Swap ---
    int x = 5, y = 10;
    start = clock();
    for (int i = 0; i < ITERATIONS; i++) { x ^= y; y ^= x; x ^= y; }
    end = clock();
    printf("XOR swap: %f s\n", (double)(end - start) / CLOCKS_PER_SEC);

    start = clock();
    for (int i = 0; i < ITERATIONS; i++) { int temp = x; x = y; y = temp; }
    end = clock();
    printf("Temp swap: %f s\n", (double)(end - start) / CLOCKS_PER_SEC);
}

```

Summary and Best Practices

Quick Reference

Problem	Best Method	Why	Alternative
Swap	XOR	No overflow, fastest, no temp variable	Temp variable (readable)
Even/Odd	<code>n & 1</code>	Fastest, direct bit operation	<code>n % 2</code> (readable)
Max of 3	Ternary	Concise, no branching	If-else (clear)

Best Practices Checklist

- [] **Swap:** use XOR for performance-critical code, temp variable for readability
- [] **Even/Odd:** always use `n & 1` in performance-critical code
- [] **Max:** use the ternary operator for concise code, if-else for clarity
- [] **Edge cases:** handle zero, negative numbers, and overflow
- [] **Documentation:** comment bitwise operations clearly
- [] **Testing:** test with boundary values (`INT_MAX` , `INT_MIN`)

Common Mistakes to Avoid

```
//    WRONG: swapping the same variable
swap_xor(&x, &x);    // Results in x = 0

//    CORRECT: check and handle
if (a != b) swap_xor(&a, &b);

//    WRONG: using modulo for performance-critical checks
if (n % 2 == 0)    // Slow

//    CORRECT: using bitwise
if (!(n & 1))    // Fast

//    WRONG: overflow in addition-based swap
*a = *a + *b;    // May overflow

//    CORRECT: use XOR for a safe swap
*a ^= *b;
*b ^= *a;
*a ^= *b;
```

Final Word

These three classic problems demonstrate the power of C operators: the **XOR swap** shows the elegance of bitwise operations, the **even/odd check** demonstrates hardware-level efficiency, and the **maximum finder** showcases decision-making with operators.

The best code is not just efficient but also maintainable — use these techniques wisely.